

1 Fundamentals: Logic, sets, numbers and vectors

1.1 Real Numbers, Eulidean Spaces

Axioms:

• Axioms of addition:

- A1 (Assoc.)** $x + (y + z) = (x + y) + z \quad \forall x, y, z \in \mathbb{R}$
- A2 (Neutral el.)** $x + 0 = x \quad \forall x \in \mathbb{R}$
- A3 (Inverse el.)** $x + (-x) = 0 \quad \forall x \in \mathbb{R} \exists (-x) \in \mathbb{R}$
- A4 (Commut.)** $x + y = y + x \quad \forall x, y \in \mathbb{R}$

Axioms of Multiplication:

- M1 (Assoc.)** $x \cdot (y \cdot z) = (x \cdot y) \cdot z \quad \forall x, y, z \in \mathbb{R}$
- M2 (Neutral el.)** $x \cdot 1 = x \quad \forall x \in \mathbb{R}$
- M3 (Inverse el.)** $x \cdot x^{-1} = 1 \quad \forall x \in \mathbb{R} \setminus \{0\} \exists x^{-1} \in \mathbb{R}$
- M4 (Commut.)** $x \cdot z = z \cdot x \quad \forall x, z \in \mathbb{R}$

Order Axioms:

- O1 (Reflexivity)** $x \leq x \quad \forall x \in \mathbb{R}$
- O2 (Transitivity)** $(x \leq y \wedge y \leq z) \Rightarrow x \leq z$
- O3 (Antisymmetry)** $(x \leq y \wedge y \leq x) \Rightarrow x = y$
- O4 (Totality)** $\forall x, y \in \mathbb{R} : x \leq y \text{ or } y \leq x$

Distributivity Axiom:

$$x \cdot (y + z) = xy + xz = (y + z) \cdot x \quad \forall x, y, z \in \mathbb{R}$$

Compatibility Axioms:

- K1** $x \leq y \Rightarrow x + z \leq y + z \quad \forall x, y, z \in \mathbb{R}$
- K2** $x \geq 0, y \geq 0 \Rightarrow xy \geq 0 \quad \forall x, y \in \mathbb{R}$

R 1.1.5:

- The set $\mathbb{Q}$ of rational numbers, equipped with addition, multiplication, and the order relation $\leq$, satisfies the above axioms.

V (Completeness axiom):

- The set $\mathbb{R}$ is **order complete**: For any two nonempty sets $A, B \subset \mathbb{R}$ such that $a \leq b$ for all $a \in A, b \in B$, there exists a number $c \in \mathbb{R}$ satisfying $a \leq c \leq b \quad \forall a \in A, b \in B$.

C 1.1.6:

• The consequences of above axioms are:

- Uniqueness of the additive and multiplicative inverse.
- $0 \cdot x = 0 \quad \forall x \in \mathbb{R}$.
- $(-1) \cdot x = -x \quad \forall x \in \mathbb{R}$, in particular $(-1)^2 = 1$.
- $y \geq 0 \iff (-y) \leq 0$.
- $y^2 \geq 0 \quad \forall y \in \mathbb{R}$, in particular $1 = 1 \cdot 1 \geq 0$.
- If $x \leq y$ and $u \leq v$, then $x + u \leq y + v$.
- If $0 \leq x \leq y$ and $0 \leq u$, then $xu \leq yu$.

T (Completeness of the real numbers):

- $\mathbb{R}$ is a commutative ordered field that is order-complete.

C 1.1.7 (Archimedean Principle):

- For $x \in \mathbb{R}$ and $y > 0$ there exists $n \in \mathbb{N}$ such that $ny > x$.
- For every $\varepsilon > 0$ there exists $n \in \mathbb{N}$ such that $\frac{1}{n} < \varepsilon$.

T 1.1.8:

- For every $t \geq 0, t \in \mathbb{R}$, the equation $x^2 = t$ has a solution in $\mathbb{R}$.

D (Bounded set - upper/lower bounded):

- A set $A \in \mathbb{R}$ is called upper bounded if $\exists b \in \mathbb{R} \quad \forall a \in A : a \leq b$. Each such b is called an upper bound for A . (Similarly for lower bound.)

T (Supremum/Infimum):

- Maximum and minimum (if exists) are unique
- Every non-empty subset bounded below (above) has a unique infimum (supremum).
- $\sup(X) \Leftrightarrow (\forall x \in X : x \leq S) \wedge (\forall \varepsilon > 0 \exists x \in X : x > S - \varepsilon)$
- $\inf(X) \Leftrightarrow (\forall x \in X : x \geq I) \wedge (\forall \varepsilon > 0 \exists x \in X : x < I + \varepsilon)$

D (Maximum/Minimum):

- $\max\{x, y\} := \begin{cases} x, & \text{if } y \leq x, \\ y, & \text{if } x \leq y. \end{cases} \quad \min\{x, y\} := \begin{cases} y, & \text{if } y \leq x, \\ x, & \text{if } x \leq y. \end{cases}$

T (Properties of the absolute value):

- Properties:
 - $|x| \geq 0$.
 - $|x + y| \leq |x| + |y|$ (triangle inequality).
 - $|x + y| \geq ||x| - |y||$ (inv. triangle inequality).

T (Young's inequality):

- For every $\varepsilon > 0$ and all $x, y \in \mathbb{R}$ it holds: $2|xy| \leq \varepsilon x^2 + \frac{1}{\varepsilon} y^2$.

1.2 Vectors and Vector Spaces

D (inner product):

- For $x, y \in \mathbb{R}^n$ the standard inner product is $x \cdot y = \langle x, y \rangle = \sum_{i=1}^n x_i y_i$

D (Euclidean norm):

- The Euclidean norm is $\|x\| = \sqrt{\sum_{i=1}^n x_i^2}$

D (Euclidean distance):

- The Euclidean distance is $d(x, y) = \sqrt{\sum_{i=1}^n (x_i - y_i)^2}$

D (Triangle inequality):

- For all $x, y, z \in \mathbb{R}^n$: $\|x - z\| \leq \|x - y\| + \|y - z\|$

1.3 Complex Numbers

D (Complex number):

- A complex number is $z = a + ib, \quad a, b \in \mathbb{R}$

D (set of complex numbers):

- The set of complex numbers is $\mathbb{C} = \{a + ib \mid a, b \in \mathbb{R}\}$

D (Terminology of complex numbers):

- Terminology
 - $a = \operatorname{Re}(z)$ — real part
 - $b = \operatorname{Im}(z)$ — imaginary part
 - $i^2 = -1$
 - If $a = 0$, the number is purely imaginary

D (Complex numbers operations):

- Let $z_1 = x_1 + iy_1, z_2 = x_2 + iy_2$.

- addition:** $z_1 + z_2 = (x_1 + x_2) + i(y_1 + y_2)$
- subtraction:** $z_1 - z_2 = (x_1 - x_2) + i(y_1 - y_2)$
- multiplication:** $z_1 z_2 = x_1 x_2 - y_1 y_2 + i(x_1 y_2 + y_1 x_2)$
- division:** $\frac{z}{w} = \frac{z \overline{w}}{w \overline{w}} = \frac{z \overline{w}}{|w|^2}$
- conjugate:** $\overline{z} = x + iy = x - iy$

D (Properties of the Conjugate):

- Properties are:

$$z \overline{z} = |z|^2$$

- $z + \overline{z} = 2 \operatorname{Re}(z), \quad z - \overline{z} = 2i \operatorname{Im}(z)$
- $\overline{\overline{z}} = z$
- $\overline{z \pm w} = \overline{z} \pm \overline{w}$
- $\overline{z \overline{w}} = \overline{z} w$
- $z = \overline{z}$, if $z \in \mathbb{R}$
- $\overline{z} = -z$, z is purely imaginary

D (Modulus):

- The **magnitude** $|z|$ of a complex number $z = a + ib$ is the length of the corresponding vector: $|z| = \sqrt{a^2 + b^2}$
- The **distance** between two complex numbers: $d(z_1, z_2) = |z_2 - z_1|$
- Triangle inequality:** $|z + w| \leq |z| + |w|$

D (Euler's Formula):

- The exponential function can be represented by a **series expansion**

$$e^x = \sum_{k=0}^{\infty} \frac{x^k}{k!}$$

If we substitute $x = it$ into this formula, we obtain **Euler's formula**.

$$e^{it} = \cos t + i \sin t$$

We can **rewrite** $\sin(t)$ and $\cos(t)$ using complex exponential functions:

$$\cos(t) = \frac{e^{it} + e^{-it}}{2}, \quad \sin(t) = \frac{e^{it} - e^{-it}}{2i}$$

D (Exponential with Complex Argument):

- We can also allow complex arguments for the exponential function. Then the following rules apply:

- $e^{z+w} = e^z e^w$
- $e^{a+ib} = e^a (\cos b + i \sin b)$
- $e^{z+2i\pi} = e^z$

D (Polar Form):

- A complex number can also be described by specifying the distance from the origin and by specifying a suitable angle: $z = r e^{i\varphi}$.

- $r = |z| \geq 0$ - distance
- $\varphi \in (-\pi, \pi]$ - polar angle
- $\varphi = \arg(z) = \arctan(z)$

D (Polar to Cartesian conversion):

$$x = r \cos \varphi \mid y = r \sin \varphi.$$

D (Cartesian to Polar conversion):

$$r = \sqrt{x^2 + y^2} \mid \varphi = \arctan \frac{y}{x}.$$

- If $x = 0$: $\arg(iy) = \begin{cases} \frac{\pi}{2}, & y > 0 \\ -\frac{\pi}{2}, & y < 0 \end{cases}$

D (Powers of Complex Numbers):

- The following rules must be observed:

- $z_1 z_2 = r_1 r_2 e^{i(\varphi_1 + \varphi_2)}$
- $\frac{z_1}{z_2} = \frac{r_1}{r_2} e^{i(\varphi_1 - \varphi_2)}$
- $z^n = r^n e^{in\varphi}$

D (Roots from complex numbers):

- For $n \in \mathbb{N}$, the solutions to the equation $z^n = r e^{i\varphi}$ are

$$z_k = r^{1/n} e^{i(\varphi/n + 2\pi k/n)}, \quad k = 0, \dots, n-1$$

D (Quadratic Equations):

- For the quadratic equation $az^2 + bz + c = 0$, in complex numbers the solution is still $z_{1,2} = \frac{-b \pm \sqrt{b^2 - 4ac}}{2a}$.

D (Fundamental Theorem of Algebra):

- Each polynomial $p(z) = \sum_{k=0}^n a_k z^k$, $a_k \in \mathbb{C}$ can be factored into linear factors, i.e. written as $p(z) = a_n(z - z_1)(z - z_2) \dots (z - z_n)$. The numbers z_k are therefore precisely the zero points of $p(z)$ (with **multiplicity**).

C (non-real roots appear in conjugate pairs):

- Non-real roots of a polynomial with **real** coefficients occur in conjugate pairs $z, \bar{z}$.

2 Sequences

D (Sequence):

- A sequence $(a_n)_{n \in \mathbb{N}_0}$ (also written $(a_n)_{n \geq 0}$ or $(a_n)_{n=0}^\infty$) is an infinite list of numbers, where each entry is called a *term* of the sequence. A sequence can also be viewed as a function $f: \mathbb{N}_0 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ (or $f: \mathbb{N} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$), whose values are $f(n) = a_n$.

D (Ways to Describe a Sequence):

- One way to describe a sequence is by giving an explicit formula for each term: $a_n = f(n)$. Another possibility is to define the sequence recursively, constructing each new term from previous ones: $a_n = g(a_{n-1}, a_{n-2}, \dots)$. The functions f and g are called the *rule of formation* of the sequence.

D (Convergence/Divergence):

- A sequence $(a_n)_{n \in \mathbb{N}_0} \subset \mathbb{R}$ is called *convergent* if there exists a number $L \in \mathbb{R}$ such that

$$\forall \varepsilon > 0 \exists N > 0 \text{ such that } \forall n > N : |a_n - L| < \varepsilon.$$

The number L is called the *limit* of the sequence, and we write

$$\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} a_n = L.$$

If no such L exists, the sequence is called *divergent*.

T (Uniqueness of the Limit):

- A convergent sequence has exactly one unique limit.

D (Divergence to infinity):

- Let $(a_n)_{n \in \mathbb{N}_0}$ be a sequence.
 - If $\forall M > 0 \exists N > 0$ such that $\forall n > N : a_n > M$, then the sequence diverges to infinity and we write $\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} a_n = \infty$.
 - If $\forall M > 0 \exists N > 0$ such that $\forall n > N : a_n < -M$, then the sequence diverges to minus infinity and we write $\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} a_n = -\infty$.

D (Subsequence):

- Let $(a_n)_{n \in \mathbb{N}_0}$ be a sequence in $\mathbb{R}$. A *subsequence* is a sequence of the form $(a_{n_k})_{k \in \mathbb{N}_0}$, where $(n_k)_{k \in \mathbb{N}_0}$ is a sequence of non-negative integers satisfying $n_{k+1} > n_k$ for all $k \in \mathbb{N}_0$.

L (Limit of a sequence and its subsequence):

- Let $(a_n)_{n \in \mathbb{N}_0}$ be a convergent sequence with limit $L \in \mathbb{R}$. Then every subsequence $(a_{n_k})_{k \in \mathbb{N}_0}$ also converges to the same limit L .

D (Accumulation Point):

- Let $(a_n)_{n \in \mathbb{N}_0}$ be a sequence in $\mathbb{R}$. A number $A \in \mathbb{R}$ is called an accumulation point of the sequence if

$$\forall \varepsilon > 0 \forall N \in \mathbb{N}_0 \exists n \geq N \text{ such that } |a_n - A| < \varepsilon.$$

Intuitively, every interval $(A - \varepsilon, A + \varepsilon)$ contains terms a_n for infinitely many indices n .

T (Characterization of Accumulation Points):

- Let $(a_n)_{n \in \mathbb{N}_0}$ be a sequence in $\mathbb{R}$. A number $A \in \mathbb{R}$ is an accumulation point of the sequence if and only if there exists a convergent subsequence $(a_{n_k})_{k \in \mathbb{N}_0}$ such that $\lim_{k \rightarrow \infty} a_{n_k} = A$.

C (Accumulation Point of a Convergent Sequence):

- Every convergent sequence $(a_n)_{n \in \mathbb{N}_0}$ in $\mathbb{R}$ has exactly one accumulation point, which coincides with its limit.

C (Infinite Occurrence Near an Accumulation Point):

- Let A be an accumulation point of the sequence $(a_n)_{n \in \mathbb{N}_0}$. Then for every $\varepsilon > 0$ there exist infinitely many terms of the sequence lying in the interval $(A - \varepsilon, A + \varepsilon)$.

T (Algebra of Limits):

- Assume

$$\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} a_n = K, \quad \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} b_n = L$$

with $K, L \neq \pm\infty$ and let C be a constant. Then

- $\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} (a_n + b_n) = K + L$
- $\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} (a_n - b_n) = K - L$
- $\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} (a_n b_n) = KL$
- $\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} (C a_n) = CK$

If $L \neq 0$ and $b_n \neq 0$ then $\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \frac{a_n}{b_n} = \frac{K}{L}$.

If $K < L$ then there exists N such that $a_n < b_n$ for all $n \geq N$.

If there exists N such that $a_n \leq b_n$ for all $n \geq N$, then $K \leq L$.

T (Important Limits):

- More on the last page*

- $\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \frac{\log n}{n} = 0 = \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \frac{\ln n}{n}$
- $\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} n^{1/n} = 1$
- $\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} x^{1/n} = 1 \quad (x > 0)$
- $\forall x \in \mathbb{R} : \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \left(1 + \frac{x}{n}\right)^n = e^x$
- $\forall x \in \mathbb{R} : \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \frac{x^n}{n!} = 0$

T (Sandwich Theorem):

- Let $(a_n)_{n \in \mathbb{N}_0}$ and $(c_n)_{n \in \mathbb{N}_0}$ be convergent sequences with

$$\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} a_n = L, \quad \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} c_n = L$$

and suppose there exists N_0 such that

$$a_n \leq b_n \leq c_n \quad \text{for all } n \geq N_0.$$

Then $(b_n)_{n \in \mathbb{N}_0}$ is also convergent and $\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} b_n = L$.

D (Bounded Sequence):

- A sequence $(a_n)_{n \in \mathbb{N}_0}$ is called bounded below or bounded above if the set $M = \{a_n \mid n \in \mathbb{N}_0\}$ has a lower bound or an upper bound respectively. A sequence that is bounded both above and below is called a bounded sequence.

D (Monotone Sequence):

- A sequence $(a_n)_{n \in \mathbb{N}_0}$ is called:

- monotone decreasing* if $m > n \Rightarrow a_m \leq a_n$.
- monotone increasing* if $m > n \Rightarrow a_m \geq a_n$.
- strictly monotone decreasing* if $m > n \Rightarrow a_m < a_n$.
- strictly monotone increasing* if $m > n \Rightarrow a_m > a_n$.

T (Monotone Convergence Theorem):

- Every bounded and monotone sequence converges.

L (Convergent sequence = bounded):

- Every convergent sequence is bounded.

T (Monotone Convergence):

- Let $(a_n)_{n \in \mathbb{N}_0}$ be a sequence of real numbers.

- A monotone sequence converges if and only if it is bounded.
- (a_n) is monoton. increasing $\Rightarrow \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} a_n = \sup\{a_n \mid n \in \mathbb{N}_0\}$.
- (a_n) is monoton. decreasing $\Rightarrow \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} a_n = \inf\{a_n \mid n \in \mathbb{N}_0\}$.

D (Limit Superior and Limit Inferior):

- Let $(a_n)_{n \in \mathbb{N}_0}$ be a sequence.

- limit superior*: $\limsup_{n \rightarrow \infty} a_n = \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \sup\{a_k \mid k \geq n\}$
- limit inferior*: $\liminf_{n \rightarrow \infty} a_n = \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \inf\{a_k \mid k \geq n\}$

L (Properties of limsup and liminf):

- Let $(a_n)_{n \in \mathbb{N}_0}$ be a sequence. Then:

- (i) $\limsup_{n \rightarrow \infty} a_n = \inf_{n \in \mathbb{N}} (\sup\{a_k \mid k \geq n\})$
- (ii) $\liminf_{n \rightarrow \infty} a_n = \sup_{n \in \mathbb{N}} (\inf\{a_k \mid k \geq n\})$
- (iii) If (a_n) is convergent, then

$$\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} a_n = \limsup_{n \rightarrow \infty} a_n = \liminf_{n \rightarrow \infty} a_n.$$

- (iv) A bounded sequence (a_n) converges if and only if

$$\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} a_n = \limsup_{n \rightarrow \infty} a_n = \liminf_{n \rightarrow \infty} a_n.$$

T (Characterization via limsup):

- Let $(a_n)_{n \in \mathbb{N}_0}$ be a bounded sequence and define $A = \limsup_{n \rightarrow \infty} a_n$. Then:

- (i) A is an accumulation point of the sequence.
- (ii) For every $\varepsilon > 0$, there are only finitely many indices n such that $a_n > A + \varepsilon$.
- (iii) For every $\varepsilon > 0$, there are infinitely many indices n such that $A - \varepsilon < a_n < A + \varepsilon$.

An analogous statement holds for the limit inferior.

C (Subsequence of a Bounded Sequence):

- Every bounded sequence of real numbers has at least one accumulation point and admits a convergent subsequence.

D (Cauchy Sequence):

- A sequence $(a_n)_{n \in \mathbb{N}_0} \subset \mathbb{R}$ is called a *Cauchy sequence* if

$$\forall \varepsilon > 0 \exists N \in \mathbb{N} \text{ such that } \forall m, n \geq N : |a_n - a_m| < \varepsilon.$$

L (Cauchy Sequences are Bounded):

- Every Cauchy sequence is bounded.

T (Cauchy Criterion):

- A sequence of real numbers converges if and only if it is a Cauchy sequence.

3 Series

D (Series):

• A (formal) expression of the form $a_0 + a_1 + a_2 + \dots = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n$ is called a *series*. The terms a_n are called elements or summands. If the sequence of partial sums $s_n := \sum_{k=0}^n a_k$ converges to a limit $L \in \mathbb{R}$, then the series is said to *converge*, and we write $\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n = L$. Otherwise, the series is called *divergent*.

T (Necessary Condition for Convergence):

• If the series $\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n$ converges, then necessarily $\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} a_n = 0$.

L (Linearity of Series):

• Let $\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n$ and $\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} b_n$ be convergent series. Then:

$$\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} (a_n + b_n) = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n + \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} b_n, \quad \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} C a_n = C \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n \quad (C \in \mathbb{R}).$$

L (Tail of a Series):

• Let $\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n$ be a series. For any $N \in \mathbb{N}_0$: $\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n$ converges $\Leftrightarrow \sum_{n=N}^{\infty} a_n$ converges, and in that case

$$\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n = \sum_{n=0}^{N-1} a_n + \sum_{n=N}^{\infty} a_n.$$

T (Series with Non-Negative Terms):

• Let $a_n \geq 0$ for all n . Then the sequence of partial sums $s_n = \sum_{k=0}^n a_k$ is monotonically increasing. If (s_n) is bounded, then the series $\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n$ converges; otherwise, it diverges.

T (Comparison Test):

• Let $\sum a_n, \sum b_n, \sum c_n$ be series with non-negative terms and suppose that for some N : $c_n \leq b_n \leq a_n$ for all $n \geq N$. Then:

• If $\sum a_n$ converges, then $\sum b_n$ converges (majorant test).

• If $\sum c_n$ diverges, then $\sum b_n$ diverges (minorant test).

D (Absolute and Conditional Convergence):

• A series $\sum a_n$ is called *absolutely convergent* if $\sum |a_n|$ converges. It is called *conditionally convergent* if $\sum a_n$ converges but $\sum |a_n|$ does not.

T (Riemann Rearrangement Theorem):

• Let $\sum a_n$ be a conditionally convergent series of real numbers, $L \in \mathbb{R}$. Then there exists a bijection $\varphi : \mathbb{N}_0 \rightarrow \mathbb{N}_0$ such that $\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_{\varphi(n)} = L$.

T (Rearrangement of Absolutely Convergent Series):

• Let $\sum a_n$ be absolutely convergent and let $\varphi : \mathbb{N}_0 \rightarrow \mathbb{N}_0$ be a bijection. Then $\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_{\varphi(n)}$ converges absolutely and $\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_{\varphi(n)}$.

T (Leibniz Criterion):

• Let (a_n) be a monotonically decreasing sequence of non-negative real numbers with

$$\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} a_n = 0.$$

Then the alternating series

$$\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} (-1)^n a_n$$

converges. Moreover, for all $m \in \mathbb{N}_0$:

$$\sum_{n=0}^{2m+1} (-1)^n a_n \leq \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} (-1)^n a_n \leq \sum_{n=0}^{2m} (-1)^n a_n.$$

T (Cauchy Criterion for Series):

• The series $\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n$ converges if and only if for every $\varepsilon > 0$ there exists N such that for all $n \geq m \geq N$:

$$\left| \sum_{k=m+1}^n a_k \right| \leq \varepsilon.$$

T (Absolute Convergence Implies Convergence):

• Every absolutely convergent series converges, and

$$\left| \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n \right| \leq \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} |a_n|.$$

T (Root Test):

• Let (a_n) be a sequence and define $\rho = \limsup_{n \rightarrow \infty} |a_n|^{1/n}$. Then:

- If $\rho < 1$, the series $\sum a_n$ converges absolutely.
- If $\rho > 1$, the series $\sum a_n$ diverges.

T (Ratio Test):

• Let (a_n) with $a_n \neq 0$ and define $\rho = \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \left| \frac{a_{n+1}}{a_n} \right|$. Then:

- If $\rho < 1$, the series $\sum a_n$ converges absolutely.
- If $\rho > 1$, the series $\sum a_n$ diverges.

T (Cauchy Product):

• Let $\sum a_n$ and $\sum b_n$ be absolutely convergent. Then

$$\left(\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n \right) \left(\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} b_n \right) = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \left(\sum_{k=0}^n a_{n-k} b_k \right),$$

and the series on the right converges absolutely.

D (Power Series):

• A series of the form $\sum_{k=0}^{\infty} c_k (x-a)^k$ is called a *power series* centered at a with coefficients c_k .

D (Convergence of a Power Series):

• For fixed x , if the sequence of partial sums $s_n(x) = \sum_{k=0}^n c_k (x-a)^k$ converges, then the power series is said to converge at x .

T (Radius of Convergence):

• Every power series has a radius of convergence R such that:

- The series converges for $|x-a| < R$,
- The series diverges for $|x-a| > R$.

The interval $(a-R, a+R)$ is called the interval of convergence. The radius R is given by $\rho = \limsup_{n \rightarrow \infty} |c_n|^{1/n}$, then:

$$R = \begin{cases} 0 & \text{if } \rho = \infty, \\ \frac{1}{\rho} & \text{if } 0 < \rho < \infty, \\ \infty & \text{if } \rho = 0. \end{cases}$$

4 Functions

4.1 Function basics

D Function:

• A function (mapping) is a rule that assigns to each admissible input exactly one output in the target set. The set of all possible inputs is called

the *domain*, denoted by $\text{domain}(f)$ or D . The set of all actually attained outputs is called the *image*, denoted by $\text{image}(f)$ or W .

$$f : \text{domain}(f) \rightarrow \text{range}(f), \quad x \mapsto f(x).$$

The input is called the *independent variable*, the output the *dependent variable*.

D Restriction of a Function:

• Let $f : D(f) \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ and let $D_0 \subseteq D(f)$. The restriction of f to D_0 is the function

$$f|_{D_0} : D_0 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, \quad f|_{D_0}(x) = f(x).$$

Note that f and $f|_{D_0}$ are, in general, different functions.

D Bounded Functions:

• Let $f : D(f) \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$.

- f is *bounded above* if $\exists M \in \mathbb{R}$ such that $f(x) \leq M \quad \forall x \in D(f)$.
- f is *bounded below* if $\exists M \in \mathbb{R}$ such that $f(x) \geq M \quad \forall x \in D(f)$.
- f is *bounded* if $\exists M \in \mathbb{R}$ such that $|f(x)| \leq M \quad \forall x \in D(f)$.

D Injective, Surjective, Bijective:

• Let $f : X \rightarrow Y$.

- f is *injective* if (different outputs for different inputs)

$$f(x_1) = f(x_2) \Rightarrow x_1 = x_2.$$

- f is *surjective* if (every value in the codomain gets hit)

$$\forall y \in Y \exists x \in X : f(x) = y.$$

- f is *bijective* if it is both injective and surjective.

D Composition:

• Let $f : X \rightarrow Y$ and $g : Y \rightarrow Z$. The composition is defined by

$$g \circ f : X \rightarrow Z, \quad (g \circ f)(x) = g(f(x)).$$

D Identity and Inverse:

• For a set X , the identity function is defined by $\text{id}_X(x) = x \quad (\forall x \in X)$. If $f : X \rightarrow Y$ is bijective, then there exists a unique function $f^{-1} : Y \rightarrow X$ such that $f^{-1} \circ f = \text{id}_X$, $f \circ f^{-1} = \text{id}_Y$. This function is called the *inverse* of f .

D Monotonicity:

• Let $f : D(f) \subseteq \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$.

- f is *monotonically increasing* if $x_1 < x_2 \Rightarrow f(x_1) \leq f(x_2)$.
- f is *strictly increasing* if $x_1 < x_2 \Rightarrow f(x_1) < f(x_2)$.
- f is *monotonically decreasing* if $x_1 < x_2 \Rightarrow f(x_1) \geq f(x_2)$.
- f is *strictly decreasing* if $x_1 < x_2 \Rightarrow f(x_1) > f(x_2)$.

T Strict Monotonicity Implies Injectivity:

• Every strictly monotone function is injective.

D Even and Odd Functions:

• Let $f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$.

- f is *even* if $f(-x) = f(x)$.
- f is *odd* if $f(-x) = -f(x)$.

D Convexity and Concavity (Geometric):

• The graph of a function is called

- *convex* if it bends to the left when moving from left to right,
- *concave* if it bends to the right when moving from left to right.

4.2 Limits of Functions

D Limit of a Function:

- Let $f : D(f) \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ and $x_0 \in \mathbb{R}$. A number $L \in \mathbb{R}$ is called the limit of $f(x)$ at x_0 if

$$\forall \varepsilon > 0 \exists \delta > 0 \text{ such that } x \in D(f), |x - x_0| < \delta \Rightarrow |f(x) - L| < \varepsilon.$$

The limit is uniquely determined.

D One-Sided Limits:

- One-Sided Limits
 - Right-hand limit: $\lim_{x \rightarrow x_0^+} f(x) = L$
 - Left-hand limit: $\lim_{x \rightarrow x_0^-} f(x) = L$

D Limits at Infinity:

- Limits at Infinity
 - $\lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} f(x) = L$
 - $\lim_{x \rightarrow -\infty} f(x) = L$

D Infinite Limits:

- Infinite Limits
 - $\lim_{x \rightarrow c} f(x) = \infty$
 - $\lim_{x \rightarrow c} f(x) = -\infty$

T Limit Laws:

- Let
$$\lim_{x \rightarrow c} f(x) = K, \quad \lim_{x \rightarrow c} g(x) = L, \quad K, L \neq \pm\infty.$$

Then:

- $\lim_{x \rightarrow c} (f + g) = K + L$
- $\lim_{x \rightarrow c} (f - g) = K - L$
- $\lim_{x \rightarrow c} (fg) = KL$
- $\lim_{x \rightarrow c} (Af) = AK$
- If $L \neq 0$: $\lim_{x \rightarrow c} \frac{f}{g} = \frac{K}{L}$

4.3 Continuity of functions

D Continuity:

- Let $f : D \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ and $x_0 \in D$. The function f is called *continuous* at x_0 if

$$\forall \varepsilon > 0 \exists \delta > 0 \text{ such that } |x - x_0| < \delta \Rightarrow |f(x) - f(x_0)| < \varepsilon.$$

The function is called *continuous* if it is continuous at every point in its domain.

D One-Sided Continuity:

- Let $f : D(f) \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ and $x_0 \in D(f)$.
 - f is *right-continuous* at x_0 if $\lim_{x \rightarrow x_0^+} f(x) = f(x_0)$.
 - f is *left-continuous* at x_0 if $\lim_{x \rightarrow x_0^-} f(x) = f(x_0)$.

T Sequential Characterization of Continuity:

- Let $f : D \subseteq \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ and $x_0 \in D$. Then f is continuous at x_0 if and only if, for every sequence $(x_n)_{n \in \mathbb{N}} \subseteq D$,

$$\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} x_n = x_0 \implies \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} f(x_n) = f(x_0).$$

T Algebra of Continuous Functions:

- Let $f, g : D \subseteq \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be continuous. Then:
 - $f + g$ is continuous

- $f - g$ is continuous
- cf is continuous for any constant $c \in \mathbb{R}$
- $f \cdot g$ is continuous
- $\frac{f}{g}$ is continuous if $g \neq 0$

T Continuity of Composition:

- Let $f : I \rightarrow \text{image}(f)$ and $g : \text{image}(f) \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be continuous. Then the composition $g \circ f$ is continuous and

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow x_0} g(f(x)) = g\left(\lim_{x \rightarrow x_0} f(x)\right).$$

T Continuity of the Inverse:

- Let I be an interval and let $f : I \rightarrow J$ be continuous and bijective. Then J is also an interval and the inverse function $f^{-1} : J \rightarrow I$ is continuous.

T Intermediate Value Theorem:

- Let $f : [a, b] \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be continuous and let c be a value between $f(a)$ and $f(b)$. Then there exists $x \in [a, b]$ such that $f(x) = c$.

C Zero of a Continuous Function (Bolzano theorem):

- Let $f : I \subseteq \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be continuous and suppose

$$f(a) < 0, \quad f(b) > 0.$$

Then there exists $x \in (a, b)$ such that

$$f(x) = 0.$$

D Compact Interval:

- A bounded and closed interval $[a, b]$ is called *compact*.
- L Bolzano–Weierstrass for Intervals:**
- Let (x_n) be a sequence in a compact interval $[a, b]$. Then there exists a subsequence (x_{n_k}) such that $x_{n_k} \rightarrow x_0$ with $x_0 \in [a, b]$.

D Local Extrema:

- Let $f : D \subseteq \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$.
 - x_0 is a *local maximum* if $f(x_0) \geq f(x) \quad \forall x \in D$.
 - x_0 is a *local minimum* if $f(x_0) \leq f(x) \quad \forall x \in D$.
 - Local maxima and minima are called *local extrema*.

T Extreme Value Theorem:

- Let $f : I \subseteq \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be continuous and let I be compact. Then f is bounded and attains its maximum and minimum on I , i.e., there exist $x_{\min}, x_{\max} \in I$ such that $f(x_{\min}) \leq f(x) \leq f(x_{\max}) \quad (\forall x \in I)$.

5 Derivatives

5.1 Differentiation

D Derivative:

- Let $f : D \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ and assume D has no isolated points. The *difference quotient* is

$$\frac{f(a+h) - f(a)}{h}.$$

If the limit exists, the *derivative* of f at a is defined by

$$f'(a) = \lim_{h \rightarrow 0} \frac{f(a+h) - f(a)}{h} = \lim_{b \rightarrow a} \frac{f(b) - f(a)}{b - a}.$$

Interpretation:

- instantaneous rate of change
- slope of the tangent
- sign indicates increase/decrease

D Derivative Function:

- Given $f : D \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$, the *derivative function* is $x \mapsto f'(x)$.

D Differentiability:

- A function f is *differentiable* at x if $f'(x)$ exists. If this holds for all x in the domain, f is called differentiable.

L Differentiability Implies Continuity:

- If f is differentiable at x_0 , then f is continuous at x_0 .

D One-Sided Derivatives:

- Derivatives
 - Right derivative: $\lim_{h \rightarrow 0^+} \frac{f(a+h) - f(a)}{h}$
 - Left derivative: $\lim_{h \rightarrow 0^-} \frac{f(a+h) - f(a)}{h}$

Continuity / Differentiability at x_0 :

- Continuity:
$$\lim_{x \rightarrow x_0} f(x) = f(x_0) \Rightarrow f \in C(x_0).$$

- Differentiability:

$$\lim_{h \rightarrow 0} \frac{f(x_0 + h) - f(x_0)}{h} = L \in \mathbb{R} \Rightarrow f'(x_0) = L.$$

$$f \text{ differentiable at } x_0 \Rightarrow f \text{ continuous at } x_0.$$

- Mini example: Let

$$f(x) = \begin{cases} x^2 \sin\left(\frac{1}{x}\right), & x \neq 0, \\ 0, & x = 0. \end{cases}$$

Continuity at 0:

$$|f(x)| = \left| x^2 \sin\left(\frac{1}{x}\right) \right| \leq x^2 \rightarrow 0 = f(0).$$

Differentiability at 0:

$$f'(0) = \lim_{h \rightarrow 0} \frac{f(h) - f(0)}{h} = \lim_{h \rightarrow 0} h \sin\left(\frac{1}{h}\right) = 0.$$

Thus f is continuous and differentiable at 0, with

$$f'(0) = 0.$$

D Higher Derivatives:

- Define iteratively:

$$f^{(0)} = f, \quad f^{(1)} = f', \quad f^{(2)} = f'', \quad f^{(n+1)} = (f^{(n)})'.$$

If $f^{(n)}$ exists, f is n -times differentiable. If all derivatives up to order n are continuous, then $f \in C^n(D)$. Define $C^\infty(D) := \bigcap_{n=0}^\infty C^n(D)$, called *smooth functions*.

T Basic Derivatives:

- Basic Derivatives, more in the end*

- Power: $(ax^p)' = apx^{p-1}$
- Exponential: $(a^x)' = \ln(a) a^x$
- Trig.: $(\sin x)' = \cos x, \quad (\cos x)' = -\sin x, \quad (\tan x)' = \frac{1}{\cos^2 x}$
- Hyperbolic: $(\sinh x)' = \cosh x, \quad (\cosh x)' = \sinh x$
- Inverse: $(\ln x)' = \frac{1}{x}, \quad (\arctan x)' = \frac{1}{1+x^2}$

T Derivative Rules:

- Derivative Rules

- **Sum and Product Rule.** For differentiable functions f and g ,

$$(f + g)' = f' + g' \quad (fg)' = f'g + fg'.$$

- **Chain Rule.** If f is differentiable at x_0 and g is differentiable at $f(x_0)$, then

$$(g \circ f)'(x_0) = g'(f(x_0)) f'(x_0).$$

- **Quotient Rule.** If $g(x_0) \neq 0$, then

$$\left(\frac{f}{g}\right)'(x_0) = \frac{f'(x_0)g(x_0) - f(x_0)g'(x_0)}{g(x_0)^2}.$$

- **Derivative of the Inverse.** Let f be bijective and differentiable, with $f'(x_0) \neq 0$. Then

$$(f^{-1})'(f(x_0)) = \frac{1}{f'(x_0)}.$$

T Necessary Condition for Extremum:

- If x_0 is a local extremum and f is differentiable at x_0 , then $f'(x_0) = 0$.

T Characterization of Local Extrema:

- If x_0 is a local extremum, then at least one holds:

- x_0 is a boundary point
- f is not differentiable at x_0
- $f'(x_0) = 0$

T Rolle's Theorem:

- Let f be continuous on $[a, b]$ and differentiable on (a, b) with $f(a) = f(b)$. Then there exists $\xi \in (a, b)$ such that $f'(\xi) = 0$.

T Mean Value Theorem:

- Let f be continuous on $[a, b]$ and differentiable on (a, b) . Then there exists $\xi \in (a, b)$ such that

$$f'(\xi) = \frac{f(b) - f(a)}{b - a}.$$

T l'Hospital's Rule (0/0):

- If $\lim_{x \rightarrow a} f(x) = \lim_{x \rightarrow a} g(x) = 0$ and $\lim_{x \rightarrow a} \frac{f'(x)}{g'(x)} = L$, then

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow a} \frac{f(x)}{g(x)} = L.$$

T l'Hospital's Rule (∞/∞):

- If $\lim_{x \rightarrow a} |f(x)| = \lim_{x \rightarrow a} |g(x)| = \infty$ and $\lim_{x \rightarrow a} \frac{f'(x)}{g'(x)} = L$, then

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow a} \frac{f(x)}{g(x)} = L.$$

T l'Hospital at Infinity:

- If $\lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} f(x), g(x) \in \{0, \infty\}$ and $\lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} \frac{f'(x)}{g'(x)} = L$, then

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} \frac{f(x)}{g(x)} = L.$$

T Monotonicity via Derivative:

- $f'(x) \geq 0 \iff f$ is increasing

C Constant Functions:

- f is constant iff $f'(x) = 0 \quad \forall x$.

T Convexity via First Derivative:

- f is convex iff f' is increasing.

C Convexity via Second Derivative:

- If f is twice differentiable:

- $f''(x) \geq 0 \iff f$ is convex.
- $f''(x) \leq 0 \iff f$ is concave

T Second Derivative Test:

- Let f be twice differentiable near x_0 and suppose $f'(x_0) = 0$.

Then: $f''(x_0) > 0 \Rightarrow x_0$ is a local minimum,

and $f''(x_0) < 0 \Rightarrow x_0$ is a local maximum.

5.2 Taylor Approximation and Power Series

Local Approximation by Polynomials:

- In a sufficiently small neighborhood of a point x_0 , the graph of a differentiable function f behaves almost like its tangent at x_0 . Hence, the function can locally be approximated by its tangent.

D Linear Approximation / Tangent Approximation:

- If f is differentiable at x_0 , then $f(x) \approx f(x_0) + f'(x_0)(x - x_0)$. The expression $P_1(x) = f(x_0) + f'(x_0)(x - x_0)$ is called the *linearization*, *tangent approximation*, or *first Taylor polynomial* of f at x_0 .

T Taylor's Theorem:

- Let f be infinitely differentiable on an open interval I containing x_0 . Then for every $x \in I$,

$$f(x) = f(x_0) + f'(x_0)(x - x_0) + \cdots + \frac{1}{n!} f^{(n)}(x_0)(x - x_0)^n,$$

for some c between x_0 and x . Equivalently,

$$f(x) = \sum_{k=0}^n \frac{f^{(k)}(x_0)}{k!} (x - x_0)^k + R_n(x),$$

where $R_n(x) = \frac{1}{(n+1)!} f^{(n+1)}(c)(x - x_0)^{n+1}$. The polynomial

$$P_n(x) = \sum_{k=0}^n \frac{f^{(k)}(x_0)}{k!} (x - x_0)^k$$

is called the *n-th Taylor polynomial*.

Taylor Approximation and Power Series:

- Taylor polynomials provide increasingly accurate approximations of many functions. For many functions, taking infinitely many terms recovers the original function.

D Taylor Series:

- For a function f , the series $\sum_{k=0}^{\infty} \frac{f^{(k)}(a)}{k!} (x - a)^k$ is called the *Taylor series* (or Taylor expansion) of f around the point a .

T Important Taylor Series:

- The following series converge for all x :

$$\sin(x) = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} (-1)^n \frac{x^{2n+1}}{(2n+1)!} = x - \frac{x^3}{3!} + \frac{x^5}{5!} - \cdots$$

$$\cos(x) = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} (-1)^n \frac{x^{2n}}{(2n)!} = 1 - \frac{x^2}{2!} + \frac{x^4}{4!} - \cdots$$

$$e^x = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{x^n}{n!} = 1 + x + \frac{x^2}{2!} + \frac{x^3}{3!} + \cdots$$

T Further Important Power Series:

- The following series converge for $-1 < x < 1$.

$$\ln(1+x) = \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} (-1)^{n-1} \frac{x^n}{n} = x - \frac{x^2}{2} + \frac{x^3}{3} - \frac{x^4}{4} + \cdots$$

$$\frac{1}{1-x} = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} x^n = 1 + x + x^2 + x^3 + \cdots$$

$$(1+x)^p = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \binom{p}{n} x^n = 1 + px + \frac{p(p-1)}{2!} x^2 + \cdots$$

Operations on Taylor Series:

- New Taylor series can be constructed from known ones using substitution, multiplication, differentiation, integration.

T Multiplication of Power Series:

- Let

$$f(x) = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n x^n, \quad g(x) = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} b_n x^n,$$

with x inside both convergence intervals. Then

$$f(x)g(x) = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \left(\sum_{k=0}^n a_k b_{n-k} \right) x^n.$$

T Termwise Differentiation:

- Let $f(x) = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n x^n$ inside its convergence interval. Then f is differentiable and

$$f'(x) = \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} n a_n x^{n-1}.$$

T Termwise Integration:

- Let $f(x) = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n x^n$ inside its convergence interval I . Then for every interval $[a, b] \subseteq I$,

$$\int_a^b f(x) dx = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \int_a^b a_n x^n dx.$$

6 Differential equations

D Differential Equation:

- A *differential equation* is an equation involving an unknown function together with its derivatives.

$$u'(t) = r(a - u(t))(b - u(t))$$

where r, a, b are constants, another example: $y^{(4)}(x) - 4y^{(3)}(x) + 5y''(x) - 4y'(x) + 4y(x) = 0$. The variables t, x are called *independent variables*, while u, y are called *dependent variables*.

D Linear Differential Equation:

- A differential equation of the form

$$a_n(x)y^{(n)}(x) + a_{n-1}(x)y^{(n-1)}(x) + \cdots + a_1(x)y'(x) + a_0(x)y(x) = s(x)$$

is called a *linear differential equation* with coefficients $a_i(x)$.

- The *order* of the differential equation is the highest order derivative appearing in the equation. The function $s(x)$ is called the *forcing term*. If $s(x) = 0$, the equation is called *homogeneous*; otherwise it is called *inhomogeneous*.

D Differential Equation with Constant Coefficients:

- If all coefficient functions $a_i(x)$ are constant functions, the equation is called a *differential equation with constant coefficients*.

T Superposition Principle:

- If $y_1(x)$ and $y_2(x)$ are solutions of a linear homogeneous differential equation, then $y(x) = C_1 y_1(x) + C_2 y_2(x)$ ($C_1, C_2 \in \mathbb{R}$), is also a solution of the same differential equation.

T Fundamental Solutions:

- A linear homogeneous differential equation of order n possesses n solutions $y_1(x), \dots, y_n(x)$ such that the general solution is given by

$$y(x) = C_1y_1(x) + \dots + C_ny_n(x), \qquad C_1, \dots, C_n \in \mathbb{R}.$$

These solutions are called *fundamental solutions*.

Characteristic Polynomial:

- Consider the differential equation

$$a_nu^{(n)}(x) + a_{n-1}u^{(n-1)}(x) + \dots + a_1u'(x) + a_0u(x) = 0.$$

Using the ansatz $u(x) = e^{\lambda x}$ (Euler ansatz), we get the *characteristic polynomial*: $p(\lambda) = a_n\lambda^n + a_{n-1}\lambda^{n-1} + \dots + a_1\lambda + a_0$

T Solution of Linear Homogeneous Differential Equations:

- Consider

$$a_nu^{(n)} + \dots + a_1u' + a_0u = 0.$$

Step 1: Characteristic equation

$$a_n\lambda^n + \dots + a_1\lambda + a_0 = 0.$$

Step 2: Build one solution block for each root

Root of multiplicity m	Contribution to $u_h(x)$
$\lambda \in \mathbb{R}$	$e^{\lambda x} (C_0 + C_1x + \dots + C_{m-1}x^{m-1})$
$\alpha \pm i\beta$	$e^{\alpha x} \sum_{k=0}^{m-1} x^k (A_k \cos(\beta x) + B_k \sin(\beta x))$

Step 3: Add all blocks

$$u_h(x) = \text{sum of all root contributions.}$$

Memory rule:

multiplicity $m \Rightarrow 1, x, \dots, x^{m-1}$
$\alpha \pm i\beta \Rightarrow e^{\alpha x} (\cos(\beta x), \sin(\beta x))$

Example: repeated real and complex roots:

- Suppose $(\lambda - 2)^2(\lambda^2 + 4) = 0$. Roots: $\lambda = 2$ with multiplicity 2, $\lambda = \pm 2i$. Hence $u_h(x) = (C_1 + C_2x)e^{2x} + C_3\cos(2x) + C_4\sin(2x)$.

Constants in the General Solution:

- The general solution of a differential equation of order n contains n constants. Therefore, in order to determine a unique solution, one must specify n additional conditions.

D Boundary Value Problem:

- Conditions imposed at different points, e.g. for $n = 2$:

$$u(t_0) = u_0, \qquad u(t_1) = u_1, \qquad t_0 \neq t_1,$$

define a *boundary value problem*.

D Initial Value Problem:

- Conditions imposed at a single point, e.g. for $n = 2$:

$$u(t_0) = u_0, \qquad u'(t_0) = v_0,$$

define an *initial value problem*.

7 Integration Part 1

D Antiderivative / Indefinite Integral:

- Let $I \subseteq \mathbb{R}$ be an interval and let $f : I \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be a function. A differentiable function $F : I \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ satisfying $F'(x) = f(x) \quad \forall x \in I$ is called an *antiderivative* of f on I . Determining F from f is called *indefinite integration*.

Non-Uniqueness of Antiderivatives:

- An antiderivative is not unique. If $F(x)$ is an antiderivative of $f(x)$, then

$F(x) + C$ is also an antiderivative for every constant $C \in \mathbb{R}$. Hence a function possesses an entire family of antiderivatives. This family is called the *indefinite integral* and is written as

$$\int f(x) \, dx.$$

The function f is called the *integrand*.

T Linearity of the Indefinite Integral:

- For indefinite integrals:

$$\int (f(x) \pm g(x)) \, dx = \int f(x) \, dx \pm \int g(x) \, dx$$

and

$$\int s f(x) \, dx = s \int f(x) \, dx,$$

where s is a constant.

T Basic Integration Rules:

- Rules:

- $\int k \, dx = kx + C$
- $\int x^n \, dx = \frac{1}{n+1} x^{n+1} + C, \qquad n \neq -1$
- $\int e^x \, dx = e^x + C$
- $\int \frac{1}{x} \, dx = \ln(|x|) + C$
- $\int \sin(x) \, dx = -\cos(x) + C$
- $\int \cos(x) \, dx = \sin(x) + C$
- $\int \sinh(x) \, dx = \cosh(x) + C$
- $\int \cosh(x) \, dx = \sinh(x) + C$

T Integration by Parts:

- Using the product rule: $\frac{d}{dx}(f(x)g(x)) = f'(x)g(x) + f(x)g'(x)$, we obtain $\int \frac{d}{dx}(f(x)g(x)) \, dx = (fg)(x)$. Therefore, $(fg)(x) = \int f'(x)g(x) \, dx + \int f(x)g'(x) \, dx$. Rearranging gives the formula for *integration by parts*:

$$\int f'(x)g(x) \, dx = f(x)g(x) - \int f(x)g'(x) \, dx$$

T Integration by Substitution:

- Using the chain rule: $\frac{d}{dx}f(g(x)) = f'(g(x))g'(x)$, we obtain $\int f'(g(x))g'(x) \, dx = f(g(x)) + C$. With the substitution $y = g(x)$, this becomes $\int f'(g(x))g'(x) \, dx = \int \frac{df}{dy} \, dy$. Hence the substitution rule is

$$\int f'(g(x))g'(x) \, dx = f(g(x)) + C$$

8 Integration Part 2

D Partition of an Interval:

- Let $[a, b] \subseteq \mathbb{R}$ be a compact interval. A *partition* of $[a, b]$ is a finite set of points

$$a = x_0 < x_1 < \dots < x_{n-1} < x_n = b.$$

The points x_i are called *subdivision points*. A partition

$$a = y_0 < y_1 < \dots < y_m = b$$

is called a *refinement* of $a = x_0 < x_1 < \dots < x_n = b$ if $\{x_0, \dots, x_n\} \subseteq \{y_0, \dots, y_m\}$.

D Step Function:

- A function $f : [a, b] \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ is called a *step function* if there exists a partition $a = x_0 < x_1 < \dots < x_n = b$ such that for every $k = 1, \dots, n$, the restriction

$f|_{(x_{k-1}, x_k)}$ is constant.

D Integral of a Step Function:

- Let $f : [a, b] \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be a step function with respect to the partition $a = x_0 < x_1 < \dots < x_n = b$. Then the integral of f over $[a, b]$ is defined by

$$\int_a^b f(x) \, dx := \sum_{k=1}^n c_k(x_k - x_{k-1}),$$

where c_k denotes the constant value of f on (x_{k-1}, x_k) .

D Upper and Lower Sums:

- Let

$$f : [a, b] \rightarrow \mathbb{R}.$$

The set of upper sums is defined by

$$U(f) := \left\{ \int_a^b s(x) \, dx \mid s \in TF, \, s \geq f \right\},$$

and the set of lower sums by

$$L(f) := \left\{ \int_a^b s(x) \, dx \mid s \in TF, \, s \leq f \right\},$$

where TF denotes the set of step functions.

D Riemann Integral:

- A bounded function $f : [a, b] \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ is called *Riemann integrable* if

$$\sup L(f) = \inf U(f).$$

In this case, the common value is called the *Riemann integral* and is denoted by

$$\int_a^b f(x) \, dx := \sup L(f) = \inf U(f).$$

The numbers a, b are called the lower and upper limits of integration, and f is called the integrand.

T Properties of the Riemann Integral:

- Properties of the Riemann Integral:

- (Linearity) If $f, g : [a, b] \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ are integrable and $\alpha, \beta \in \mathbb{R}$, then

$$\int_a^b (\alpha f + \beta g)(x) \, dx = \alpha \int_a^b f(x) \, dx + \beta \int_a^b g(x) \, dx.$$

- (Monotonicity) If $f(x) \leq g(x)$ for all x , then

$$\int_a^b f(x) \, dx \leq \int_a^b g(x) \, dx.$$

- (Triangle Inequality)

$$\left| \int_a^b f(x) \, dx \right| \leq \int_a^b |f(x)| \, dx.$$

- (Reversal of Integration Limits)

$$\int_a^b f(x) \, dx = - \int_b^a f(x) \, dx.$$

- (Splitting the Interval) For $a \leq c \leq b$:

$$\int_a^b f(x) \, dx = \int_a^c f(x) \, dx + \int_c^b f(x) \, dx.$$

T Monotone Functions are Integrable:

- Every monotone function $f : [a, b] \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ is Riemann integrable.

T Continuous Functions are Integrable:

- Every continuous function $f : [a, b] \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ is Riemann integrable.

D Pointwise Convergence of Functions:

- Let $(f_n)_{n \in \mathbb{N}_0}$ be a sequence of functions $f_n : D \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$, and let $f : D \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$. The sequence (f_n) converges *pointwise* to f if for every $x \in D$, the sequence $(f_n(x))_{n \in \mathbb{N}_0}$ converges to $f(x)$.

D Uniform Convergence:

- The sequence (f_n) converges *uniformly* to f if $\forall \varepsilon > 0 \exists N$ such that for all $n \geq N$ and all $x \in D$, we have $|f_n(x) - f(x)| < \varepsilon$.

T Uniform Limit of Continuous Functions:

- Let $(f_n)_{n \in \mathbb{N}_0}$ be a sequence of continuous functions $f_n : D \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ converging uniformly to $f : D \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$. Then f is continuous.

T Uniform Limit and Integration:

- Let $(f_n)_{n \in \mathbb{N}_0}$ be a sequence of integrable functions $f_n : [a, b] \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ converging uniformly to $f : [a, b] \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$. Then f is integrable and

$$\int_a^b f(x) dx = \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \int_a^b f_n(x) dx.$$

T Mean Value Theorem for Integrals:

- If $f : [a, b] \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ is continuous, then there exists $c \in [a, b]$ such that $f(c) = \frac{1}{b-a} \int_a^b f(x) dx$. The quantity

$$\frac{1}{b-a} \int_a^b f(x) dx$$

is called the *average value* of f on $[a, b]$.

T Fundamental Theorem of Calculus:

- Let $f : [a, b] \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be continuous. Then for every constant $C \in \mathbb{R}$, the function

$$F(x) := \int_a^x f(y) dy + C$$

is an antiderivative of f . Moreover, every antiderivative of f is of this form.

C Integral Representation:

- Let $F : [a, b] \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be continuously differentiable. Then

$$F(x) = F(a) + \int_a^x F'(t) dt.$$

C Newton–Leibniz Formula:

- Let $f : [a, b] \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be continuous and let F be an antiderivative of f . Then

$$\int_a^b f(t) dt = F(b) - F(a).$$

T Integration by Parts:

- Let $f, g : [a, b] \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be continuously differentiable. Then

$$\int_a^b f(x)g'(x) dx = f(x)g(x) \Big|_a^b - \int_a^b f'(x)g(x) dx.$$

T Substitution Rule (Version 1):

- Let $f : I \rightarrow J$ be continuously differentiable and $g : J \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ continuous. Then for every $[a, b] \subseteq I$,

$$\int_a^b g(f(x))f'(x) dx = \int_{f(a)}^{f(b)} g(y) dy.$$

T Substitution Rule (Version 2):

- Let $f : I \rightarrow J$ be continuously differentiable and $g : J \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ continuous. Assume $f'(x) \neq 0 \quad \forall x \in [a, b]$ and let $f^{-1} : [f(a), f(b)] \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ denote the inverse of $f|_{[a, b]}$. Then

$$\int_a^b g(f(x)) dx = \int_{f(a)}^{f(b)} g(y)(f^{-1})'(y) dy.$$

9 Differential equations - 2

D Separation of Variables:

- The method of separation of variables is particularly suitable for differential equations of the form $y'(x) = f(x) \cdot g(y)$. The idea is to move all terms involving the independent variable to one side and all terms involving the dependent variable to the other side, and then integrate both sides.

D Linear Substitution:

- A differential equation of the form

$$\frac{dy}{dx} = y' = f(ax + by + c), \quad a, b, c \in \mathbb{R},$$

can be transformed into a differential equation with separable variables by the substitution: $u = ax + by + c$.

Autonomous Equation:

- After the substitution $u = ax + by + c$, the differential equation $\frac{dy}{dx} = f(ax + by + c)$ becomes

$$\frac{du}{dx} = a + b \frac{dy}{dx} = a + bf(u).$$

The independent variable x no longer appears explicitly on the right-hand side. Such a differential equation is called *autonomous*.

D Homogeneous Differential Equation:

- A differential equation of the form

$$\frac{dy}{dx} = g\left(\frac{y}{x}\right)$$

is called *homogeneous in the variables*. It can be transformed into a differential equation with separable variables by the substitution $u = \frac{y}{x}$.

D Associated Homogeneous Equation:

- Given an inhomogeneous differential equation

$$a_n(x)y^{(n)}(x) + \dots + a_0(x)y(x) = s(x), \quad s(x) \neq 0,$$

the equation $a_n(x)y^{(n)}(x) + \dots + a_0(x)y(x) = 0$ is called the associated homogeneous differential equation.

T General Solution of a Linear Inhomogeneous ODE:

- Let $y_p(x)$ be a particular solution of a linear inhomogeneous differential equation and let $y_h(x)$ be the general solution of the associated homogeneous equation. Then $y(x) = y_h(x) + y_p(x)$ is the general solution of the linear inhomogeneous differential equation.

D Variation of Constants:

- Consider a first-order linear inhomogeneous differential equation. A particular solution can be obtained by replacing the constant appearing in the general solution of the associated homogeneous equation by a function of the independent variable. This method is called *variation of constants*.

Variation of Constants Example:

- Given

$$y' - y = x,$$

the associated homogeneous equation

$$y' - y = 0$$

has general solution

$$y_h(x) = Ke^x.$$

The variation-of-constants ansatz is therefore

$$y_p(x) = K(x)e^x.$$

T Standard Ansätze for Particular Solutions:

- For a linear inhomogeneous ODE $L(y) = s(t)$:

Forcing term $s(t)$	Ansatz $y_p(t)$
$a_0 + a_1 t + \dots + a_n t^n$	$C_0 + C_1 t + \dots + C_n t^n$
Ae^{kt}	Ce^{kt}
$A \sin(\omega t) + B \cos(\omega t)$	$C_1 \sin(\omega t) + C_2 \cos(\omega t)$

If the corresponding characteristic root has multiplicity m , multiply the ansatz by t^m . That is: $0 \rightsquigarrow t^m$, $k \rightsquigarrow t^m$, $i\omega \rightsquigarrow t^m$.

T Picard–Lindelöf–Peano (First Order):

- The initial value problem

$$y' = f(x, y), \quad y(x_0) = y_0,$$

has, for sufficiently well-behaved functions f , a unique solution $x \mapsto y(x)$, $x \in I$, where the interval I may depend on x_0 and y_0 .

T Picard–Lindelöf–Peano (Higher Order):

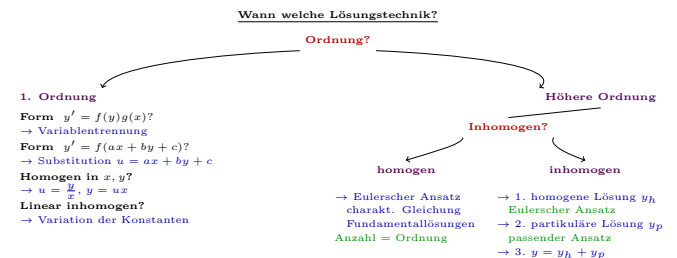
- The initial value problem

$$y^{(n)} + f_{n-1}(x)y^{(n-1)} + \dots + f_1(x)y' + f_0(x)y = s(x),$$

with initial conditions

$$y(x_0) = y_0, \quad y'(x_0) = v_0, \quad \dots, \quad y^{(n-1)}(x_0) = z_0,$$

has, for sufficiently well-behaved functions $f_{n-1}, \dots, f_0, s$, a unique solution $x \mapsto y(x)$, $x \in I$, where the interval I may depend on x_0 and the prescribed initial data.



Important Limits

- $\lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} \frac{1}{x} = 0$
 - $\lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} \left(1 + \frac{1}{x}\right) = 1$
 - $\lim_{x \rightarrow 0} \frac{\log(1-x)}{x} = -1$
 - $\lim_{x \rightarrow 0} x \log x = 0$
 - $\lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} e^x = \infty$
 - $\lim_{x \rightarrow -\infty} e^x = 0$
 - $\lim_{x \rightarrow 0} \frac{1 - \cos x}{x^2} = \frac{1}{2}$
 - $\lim_{x \rightarrow 0} \frac{e^x - 1}{x} = 1$
 - $\lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} e^{-x} = 0$
 - $\lim_{x \rightarrow -\infty} e^{-x} = \infty$
 - $\lim_{x \rightarrow 0} \frac{x}{\arctan x} = 1$
 - $\lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} \arctan x = \frac{\pi}{2}$
 - $\lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} \frac{e^x}{x^m} = \infty$
 - $\lim_{x \rightarrow -\infty} x e^x = 0$
 - $\lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} \left(\frac{x}{x+k}\right)^x = e^{-k}$
 - $\lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} \ln x = \infty$
 - $\lim_{x \rightarrow 0} \ln x = -\infty$
 - $\lim_{x \rightarrow 0} \frac{a^x - 1}{x} = \ln(a)$
 - $\lim_{x \rightarrow 0} \frac{e^{ax} - 1}{x} = a$
 - $\lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} (1+x)^{1/x} = 1$
 - $\lim_{x \rightarrow 0} (1+x)^{1/x} = e$
- $\lim_{x \rightarrow 0} \frac{\ln(1+x)}{x} = 1$
 - $\lim_{x \rightarrow 1} \frac{\ln x}{x-1} = 1$
 - $\lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} \frac{\ln x}{x} = 0$
 - $\lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} \frac{\log x}{x^\alpha} = 0$
 - $\lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} x^a q^x = 0, 0 \leq q < 1$
 - $\lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} n^{1/n} = 1$
 - $\lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} \sqrt[n]{x} = 1$
 - $\lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} \frac{2x}{2^x} = 0$
 - $\lim_{x \rightarrow \pm \infty} \left(1 + \frac{1}{x}\right)^x = e$
 - $\lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} \left(1 - \frac{1}{x}\right)^x = \frac{1}{e}$
 - $\lim_{x \rightarrow \pm \infty} \left(1 + \frac{k}{x}\right)^{mx} = e^{km}$
 - $\lim_{x \rightarrow 0} \frac{\sin x}{x} = 1$
 - $\lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} \frac{\sin x}{x} = 0$
 - $\lim_{x \rightarrow 0^+} x \ln x = 0$
 - $\lim_{x \rightarrow (\pi/2)^-} \tan x = +\infty$
 - $\lim_{x \rightarrow (\pi/2)^+} \tan x = -\infty$
 - $\lim_{x \rightarrow 0} \frac{1}{\cos x} = 1$
 - $\lim_{x \rightarrow 0} \frac{\cos x - 1}{x} = 0$
 - $\lim_{x \rightarrow 0} \sqrt[n]{n!} = \infty$
 - $\lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} (\log n)^{1/n} = 1$

Rules of derivation (holds only if f^{-1} exists and f continuous.)

- **Sum:** $(f + g)' = f' + g'$
- **Product:** $(fg)' = f'g + fg'$
- **Chain rule:** $(g \circ f)' = g'(f)f'$
- **Quotient rule:** $\left(\frac{f}{g}\right)' = \frac{f'g - fg'}{g^2}$
- **Derivative of the Inverse:** $(f^{-1})'(y_0) = \frac{1}{f'(x_0)}, \quad y_0 = f(x_0)$

Rules of integration

- **Linearity of Integration:** $\int (f + g) = \int f + \int g$ and $\int cf = c \int f$
- **Integration by Parts:** $\int f'g = fg - \int fg'$
- **Substitution:** $\int g(f(x))f'(x)dx = \int g(y)dy$

Logarithms

- **Change of base:** $\log_a x = \frac{\ln x}{\ln a}$
- **Power rule:** $\log_a(x^y) = y \log_a x$
- **Product rule:** $\log_a(xy) = \log_a x + \log_a y$
- **Quotient rule:** $\log_a\left(\frac{x}{y}\right) = \log_a x - \log_a y$

- **Logarithm 1:** $\log_a(1) = 0 \ \forall a \in \mathbb{N} \ (x \leq 0 \text{ undefined})$

Trigonometry

- **Tangent and cotangent:** $\tan x = \frac{\sin x}{\cos x}, \quad \cot x = \frac{\cos x}{\sin x}$
- **Pythagorean identity:** $\sin^2 x + \cos^2 x = 1$
- **Double-angle sine:** $\sin(2x) = 2 \sin x \cos x$
- **Double-angle cosine:** $\cos(2x) = \cos^2 x - \sin^2 x = 2 \cos^2 x - 1$
- **Angle addition sine:** $\sin(x + y) = \sin x \cos y + \cos x \sin y$
- **Angle addition cosine:** $\cos(x + y) = \cos x \cos y - \sin x \sin y$
- **Even/Odd symmetry:** $\cos(x) = \cos(-x)$ and $\sin(-x) = -\sin(x)$
- **Reflection at $\pi/2$:** $\cos(\pi - x) = -\cos(x)$ and $\sin(\pi - x) = \sin(x)$

Special Trigonometric Values

	°	rad	$\sin(\xi)$	$\cos(\xi)$	$\tan(\xi)$
	0°	0	0	1	0
	30°	$\frac{\pi}{6}$	$\frac{1}{2}$	$\frac{\sqrt{3}}{2}$	$\frac{\sqrt{3}}{3}$
	45°	$\frac{\pi}{4}$	$\frac{\sqrt{2}}{2}$	$\frac{\sqrt{2}}{2}$	1
	60°	$\frac{\pi}{3}$	$\frac{\sqrt{3}}{2}$	$\frac{1}{2}$	$\sqrt{3}$
	90°	$\frac{\pi}{2}$	1	0	$\emptyset$
	120°	$\frac{2\pi}{3}$	$\frac{\sqrt{3}}{2}$	$-\frac{1}{2}$	$-\sqrt{3}$
	135°	$\frac{3\pi}{4}$	$\frac{\sqrt{2}}{2}$	$-\frac{\sqrt{2}}{2}$	-1
	150°	$\frac{5\pi}{6}$	$\frac{1}{2}$	$-\frac{\sqrt{3}}{2}$	$-\frac{\sqrt{3}}{3}$
	180°	π	0	-1	0

Quadrant	Angle range	sin	cos	tan
I	0° to 90°	+	+	+
II	90° to 180°	+	-	-
III	180° to 270°	-	-	+
IV	270° to 360°	-	+	-

Hyperbolic

- **Hyperbolic sine:** $\sinh(x) := \frac{e^x - e^{-x}}{2} : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$
- **Hyperbolic cosine:** $\cosh(x) := \frac{e^x + e^{-x}}{2} : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow [1, \infty)$
- **Hyperbolic tangent:** $\tanh(x) := \frac{\sinh(x)}{\cosh(x)} = \frac{e^x - e^{-x}}{e^x + e^{-x}} : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow (-1, 1)$
- **Inverse hyperbolic sine:** $\operatorname{arsinh} x = \ln(x + \sqrt{x^2 + 1})$
- **Inverse hyperbolic cosine:** $\operatorname{arcosh} x = \ln(x + \sqrt{x^2 - 1})$
- **Inverse hyperbolic tangent:** $\operatorname{artanh} x = \frac{1}{2} \ln \frac{1+x}{1-x}$

Complement trick

$$\sqrt{ax+b} - \sqrt{cx+d} = \frac{ax+b-(cx+d)}{\sqrt{ax+b} + \sqrt{cx+d}}$$

Derivatives and Antiderivatives

Antiderivative	Function	Derivative
$\frac{x^{n+1}}{n+1}$	x^n	nx^{n-1}
$\ln x $	$\frac{1}{x} = x^{-1}$	$-x^{-2} = -\frac{1}{x^2}$
$\frac{2}{3}x^{3/2}$	$\sqrt{x} = x^{1/2}$	$\frac{1}{2\sqrt{x}}$
$\frac{n}{n+1}x^{1/n+1}$	$\sqrt[n]{x} = x^{1/n}$	$\frac{1}{n}x^{1/n-1}$
e^x	e^x	e^x
$\exp(x)$	$\exp(x)$	$\exp(x)$
$\frac{1}{a(n+1)}(ax+b)^{n+1}$	$(ax+b)^n$	$n(ax+b)^{n-1}a$
$x(\ln x -1)$	$\ln(x)$	$\frac{1}{x}$
$\frac{1}{\ln(a)}a^x$	a^x	$a^x \ln(a)$
$\frac{x}{\ln(a)}(\ln x -1)$	$\log_a x $	$\frac{1}{x \ln(a)}$

$-\cos(x)$	$\sin(x)$	$\cos(x)$
$\sin(x)$	$\cos(x)$	$-\sin(x)$
$-\ln \cos(x) $	$\tan(x)$	$\frac{1}{\cos^2(x)}$
$\ln \sin(x) $	$\cot(x)$	$-\frac{1}{\sin^2(x)}$
$x \arcsin(x) + \sqrt{1-x^2}$	$\arcsin(x)$	$\frac{1}{\sqrt{1-x^2}}$
$x \arccos(x) - \sqrt{1-x^2}$	$\arccos(x)$	$-\frac{1}{\sqrt{1-x^2}}$
$x \arctan(x) - \frac{1}{2} \ln(x^2 + 1)$	$\arctan(x)$	$\frac{1}{x^2+1}$
$\ln \sin(x) $	$\cot(x)$	$-\frac{1}{\sin^2(x)}$
$\cosh(x)$	$\sinh(x)$	$\cosh(x)$
$\sinh(x)$	$\cosh(x)$	$\sinh(x)$
$\ln \cosh(x) $	$\tanh(x)$	$\frac{1}{\cosh^2(x)}$

$F(x)$ (further derivatives $\Rightarrow$)	$f(x) = F'(x)$
$\frac{1}{a} \ln ax+b $	$\frac{1}{ax+b}$
$\frac{ax}{c} - \frac{ad-bc}{c^2} \ln cx+d $	$\frac{a(cx+d)-c(ax+b)}{(cx+d)^2}$
$\frac{x}{2} \sqrt{a^2+x^2} + \frac{a^2}{2} \ln x+\sqrt{a^2+x^2} $	$\sqrt{a^2+x^2}$
$\frac{x}{2} \sqrt{a^2-x^2} + \frac{a^2}{2} \arcsin\left(\frac{x}{ a }\right)$	$\sqrt{a^2-x^2}$
$\frac{x}{2} \sqrt{x^2-a^2} - \frac{a^2}{2} \ln x+\sqrt{x^2-a^2} $	$\sqrt{x^2-a^2}$
$\ln x+\sqrt{x^2 \pm a^2} $	$\frac{1}{\sqrt{x^2 \pm a^2}}$
$\arcsin\left(\frac{x}{ a }\right)$	$\frac{1}{\sqrt{a^2-x^2}}$
$\frac{1}{a} \arctan\left(\frac{x}{a}\right)$	$\frac{1}{a^2+x^2}$
$-\frac{1}{a} \cos(ax+b)$	$\sin(ax+b)$
$\frac{1}{a} \sin(ax+b)$	$\cos(ax+b)$
x^x	$x^x(1+\ln x)$
$(x^x)^x$	$(x^x)^x(x+2x\ln x)$
x^{x^x}	$x^{x^x}(x^{x-1} + x^x(1+\ln x)\ln x)$
$\frac{1}{2}(x - \frac{1}{2} \sin(2x))$	$\sin^2(x)$
$\frac{1}{2}(x + \frac{1}{2} \sin(2x))$	$\cos^2(x)$
$\operatorname{arsinh}(x)$	$\frac{1}{\sqrt{1+x^2}}$
$\operatorname{arcosh}(x)$	$\frac{1}{\sqrt{x^2-1}}$
$\operatorname{artanh}(x)$	$\frac{1}{1-x^2}$

Essential Implications

Regularity	$C^\infty \Rightarrow C^n \Rightarrow C^1 \Rightarrow \text{differentiable} \Rightarrow \text{continuous}$
Derivative bound	$ f' \leq M \Rightarrow \text{Lipschitz} \Rightarrow \text{uniformly continuous} \Rightarrow \text{continuous}$
Derivative sign	$f' > 0 \Rightarrow f \text{ strictly increasing} \Rightarrow f \text{ injective}, \quad f' < 0 \Rightarrow f \text{ strictly decreasing} \Rightarrow f \text{ injective}$
Monotonicity	$f' \geq 0 \Rightarrow f \text{ increasing}, \quad f' \leq 0 \Rightarrow f \text{ decreasing}$
Constant function	$f' = 0 \iff f = \text{constant}, \quad f' = g' \Rightarrow f - g = C$
Inverse	$f \text{ strictly monotone} \Rightarrow f \text{ injective} \Rightarrow f^{-1} \text{ exists on } f(D)$
Continuous inverse	$f : I \rightarrow J \text{ continuous and bijective} \Rightarrow f^{-1} : J \rightarrow I \text{ continuous}$
Extremum condition	$x_0 \text{ interior local extremum} + f \text{ differentiable at } x_0 \Rightarrow f'(x_0) = 0$
First derivative test	$f' : - \rightarrow + \Rightarrow x_0 \text{ local minimum}, \quad f' : + \rightarrow - \Rightarrow x_0 \text{ local maximum}$
Second derivative test	$f'(x_0) = 0, \quad f''(x_0) > 0 \Rightarrow x_0 \text{ local minimum}, \quad f'(x_0) = 0, \quad f''(x_0) < 0 \Rightarrow x_0 \text{ local maximum}$
Convexity	$f'' \geq 0 \Rightarrow f' \text{ increasing} \Rightarrow f \text{ convex}, \quad f'' \leq 0 \Rightarrow f \text{ concave}$
Convex minimum	$f \text{ convex}, \quad f'(x_0) = 0 \Rightarrow x_0 \text{ global minimum}$
Continuous compact	$f \in C([a, b]) \Rightarrow f \text{ bounded and attains } \min, \max$
Intermediate value	$f \in C([a, b]), \quad f(a)f(b) < 0 \Rightarrow \exists c \in (a, b) : f(c) = 0$
Unique root	$\text{continuity} + \text{sign change} + \text{strict monotonicity} \Rightarrow \exists! c : f(c) = 0$
Sequential continuity	$f \text{ continuous at } x_0 \iff (x_n \rightarrow x_0 \Rightarrow f(x_n) \rightarrow f(x_0))$
Sequence convergence	$a_n \rightarrow L \Rightarrow (a_n) \text{ bounded}$
Subsequences	$a_n \rightarrow L \Rightarrow a_{n_k} \rightarrow L \text{ for every subsequence}$
Divergence via subsequences	$a_{n_k} \rightarrow A, \quad a_{m_k} \rightarrow B, \quad A \neq B \Rightarrow (a_n) \text{ diverges}$
Accumulation point	$A \text{ accumulation point} \iff \exists (a_{n_k}) : a_{n_k} \rightarrow A$
Bolzano–Weierstrass	$(a_n) \text{ bounded} \Rightarrow \exists \text{ convergent subsequence}$
Monotone convergence	$\text{monotone} + \text{bounded} \Rightarrow \text{convergent}$
Increasing sequence	$a_n \uparrow, \quad (a_n) \text{ bounded above} \Rightarrow a_n \rightarrow \sup\{a_n : n \in \mathbb{N}\}$
Decreasing sequence	$a_n \downarrow, \quad (a_n) \text{ bounded below} \Rightarrow a_n \rightarrow \inf\{a_n : n \in \mathbb{N}\}$
Cauchy	$\text{in } \mathbb{R} : \quad (a_n) \text{ convergent} \iff (a_n) \text{ Cauchy} \Rightarrow (a_n) \text{ bounded}$
Order and limits	$a_n \leq b_n \text{ eventually}, \quad a_n \rightarrow A, \quad b_n \rightarrow B \Rightarrow A \leq B$
Sandwich theorem	$a_n \leq b_n \leq c_n, \quad a_n \rightarrow L, \quad c_n \rightarrow L \Rightarrow b_n \rightarrow L$
Useful squeeze form	$ b_n \leq c_n, \quad c_n \rightarrow 0 \Rightarrow b_n \rightarrow 0$
Limsup/liminf	$(a_n) \text{ bounded} : \quad a_n \text{ converges} \iff \liminf a_n = \limsup a_n$
Series term test	$\sum a_n \text{ converges} \Rightarrow a_n \rightarrow 0$
Series divergence	$a_n \not\rightarrow 0 \Rightarrow \sum a_n \text{ diverges}$
Absolute convergence	$\sum a_n \text{ converges} \Rightarrow \sum a_n \text{ converges} \Rightarrow a_n \rightarrow 0$
Comparison test	$0 \leq b_n \leq a_n, \quad \sum a_n \text{ converges} \Rightarrow \sum b_n \text{ converges}$
Divergence comparison	$0 \leq b_n \leq a_n, \quad \sum b_n \text{ diverges} \Rightarrow \sum a_n \text{ diverges}$
Ratio test	$\lim \left \frac{a_{n+1}}{a_n} \right < 1 \Rightarrow \sum a_n \text{ absolutely convergent}, \quad > 1 \Rightarrow \text{divergent}$
Root test	$\limsup a_n ^{1/n} < 1 \Rightarrow \sum a_n \text{ absolutely convergent}, \quad > 1 \Rightarrow \text{divergent}$
Power series	$ x - a < R \Rightarrow \text{absolute convergence}, \quad x - a > R \Rightarrow \text{divergence},$ $ x - a = R \Rightarrow \text{check separately}$
Inside radius	$ x - a < R \Rightarrow \text{termwise differentiation/integration} \Rightarrow C^\infty$
Riemann integrability	$f \text{ continuous on } [a, b] \Rightarrow f \text{ Riemann integrable} \Rightarrow f \text{ bounded}$
Monotone integrability	$f \text{ monotone on } [a, b] \Rightarrow f \text{ Riemann integrable}$
Integral order	$f \leq g \Rightarrow \int_a^b f(x) \, dx \leq \int_a^b g(x) \, dx$
Integral bound	$ f \leq M \Rightarrow \left \int_a^b f(x) \, dx \right \leq M b - a $
Antiderivatives	$F' = f, \quad G' = f \Rightarrow F - G = C$
FTC I	$f \in C([a, b]), \quad F(x) = \int_a^x f(t) \, dt \Rightarrow F' = f$
FTC II	$F' = f \Rightarrow \int_a^b f(x) \, dx = F(b) - F(a)$
Uniform convergence	$f_n \xrightarrow{\text{unif}} f \Rightarrow f_n \xrightarrow{\text{pointwise}} f$
Uniform + continuity	$f_n \text{ continuous}, \quad f_n \xrightarrow{\text{unif}} f \Rightarrow f \text{ continuous}$
Uniform + integration	$f_n \text{ integrable}, \quad f_n \xrightarrow{\text{unif}} f \Rightarrow \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \int_a^b f_n = \int_a^b f$
False converse	$\text{continuous} \not\Rightarrow \text{differentiable} (x)$
False converse	$\text{bounded sequence} \not\Rightarrow \text{convergent} ((-1)^n)$
False converse	$a_n \rightarrow 0 \not\Rightarrow \sum a_n \text{ convergent} \left(\sum \frac{1}{n} \right)$
False converse	$f'(x_0) = 0 \not\Rightarrow x_0 \text{ extremum} (x^3)$
False converse	$f \text{ strictly increasing} \not\Rightarrow f' > 0 (x^3)$
False converse	$\text{pointwise} \not\Rightarrow \text{uniform}$
False converse	$\text{Riemann integrable} \not\Rightarrow \text{continuous}$
False converse	$\text{convergent series} \not\Rightarrow \text{absolutely convergent}$
Regularity	$C^\infty \Rightarrow C^n \Rightarrow C^1 \Rightarrow \text{differentiable} \Rightarrow \text{continuous}$
Continuity of composition (proof)	Let f be continuous at x_0 and g continuous at $f(x_0)$. Given $\varepsilon > 0$, choose $\eta > 0$ such that $ y - f(x_0) < \eta \Rightarrow g(y) - g(f(x_0)) < \varepsilon$. Choose $\delta > 0$ such that $ x - x_0 < \delta \Rightarrow f(x) - f(x_0) < \eta$. Then $ x - x_0 < \delta \Rightarrow g(f(x)) - g(f(x_0)) < \varepsilon$.

Essential Proofs I

Uniqueness of the limit	Assume $a_n \rightarrow A$ and $a_n \rightarrow B$. For arbitrary $\varepsilon > 0$, choose N_A, N_B such that $n \geq N_A \Rightarrow a_n - A < \varepsilon/2$ and $n \geq N_B \Rightarrow a_n - B < \varepsilon/2$. For $n \geq N := \max\{N_A, N_B\}$, $ A - B \leq A - a_n + a_n - B < \varepsilon$. Since this holds for every $\varepsilon > 0$, $ A - B = 0$, hence $A = B$.
Subsequences preserve limits	Assume $a_n \rightarrow L$ and let (a_{n_k}) be a subsequence. For arbitrary $\varepsilon > 0$, choose N such that $n \geq N \Rightarrow a_n - L < \varepsilon$. Since (n_k) is strictly increasing, $n_k \geq k$. Thus, for $k \geq N$, $n_k \geq k \geq N \Rightarrow a_{n_k} - L < \varepsilon$. Therefore $a_{n_k} \rightarrow L$.
Accumulation point gives infinitely many terms	Let A be an accumulation point. Then there exists a subsequence $a_{n_k} \rightarrow A$. For arbitrary $\varepsilon > 0$, choose K such that $k \geq K \Rightarrow a_{n_k} - A < \varepsilon$. Hence $a_{n_k} \in (A - \varepsilon, A + \varepsilon)$ for every $k \geq K$. Since the indices n_k are distinct and there are infinitely many $k \geq K$, the interval contains infinitely many sequence terms.
Convergent sequences are bounded	Assume $a_n \rightarrow L$. Choose N such that $n \geq N \Rightarrow a_n - L < 1$. For $n \geq N$, $ a_n \leq a_n - L + L < 1 + L $. Define $M := \max\{ a_0 , \dots, a_{N-1} , 1 + L \}$. Then $ a_n \leq M$ for every $n \in \mathbb{N}_0$; hence (a_n) is bounded.
Sandwich theorem	Assume $a_n \rightarrow L$, $c_n \rightarrow L$, and $a_n \leq b_n \leq c_n$ for all $n \geq N_0$. For arbitrary $\varepsilon > 0$, choose N_1, N_2 such that $n \geq N_1 \Rightarrow L - \varepsilon < a_n < L + \varepsilon$ and $n \geq N_2 \Rightarrow L - \varepsilon < c_n < L + \varepsilon$. For $n \geq N := \max\{N_0, N_1, N_2\}$, $L - \varepsilon < a_n \leq b_n \leq c_n < L + \varepsilon$. Thus $ b_n - L < \varepsilon$, so $b_n \rightarrow L$.
Useful squeeze form	If $ b_n \leq c_n$ eventually and $c_n \rightarrow 0$, then $-c_n \leq b_n \leq c_n$. Since $-c_n \rightarrow 0$ and $c_n \rightarrow 0$, the sandwich theorem gives $b_n \rightarrow 0$.
Order preservation under limits	Assume $a_n \leq b_n$ eventually, $a_n \rightarrow A$, and $b_n \rightarrow B$. Suppose $A > B$ and set $\varepsilon := (A - B)/3 > 0$. Eventually, $a_n > A - \varepsilon$ and $b_n < B + \varepsilon$. But $A - \varepsilon > B + \varepsilon$, so eventually $a_n > b_n$, contradicting $a_n \leq b_n$. Hence $A \leq B$.
Unique accumulation point of a convergent sequence	If $a_n \rightarrow L$, every convergent subsequence also converges to L . Since every accumulation point is the limit of some subsequence, every accumulation point equals L . Moreover, (a_n) itself converges to L , so L is an accumulation point. Hence L is the unique accumulation point.
Nonnegative series	Let $s_n := \sum_{k=0}^n a_k$ with $a_k \geq 0$. Then $s_{n+1} - s_n = a_{n+1} \geq 0$, so (s_n) is increasing. Hence (s_n) bounded $\Rightarrow (s_n)$ convergent $\Rightarrow \sum_{n=0}^\infty a_n$ converges. If (s_n) is unbounded, then the series diverges.
Necessary condition for series convergence	Assume $\sum_{n=0}^\infty a_n$ converges and let $s_n := \sum_{k=0}^n a_k \rightarrow S$. Since $a_n = s_n - s_{n-1}$, we obtain $\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} a_n = \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} s_n - \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} s_{n-1} = S - S = 0$. Thus $\sum a_n$ convergent $\Rightarrow a_n \rightarrow 0$.
Cauchy criterion: convergence $\Rightarrow$ Cauchy	Assume $a_n \rightarrow L$. For arbitrary $\varepsilon > 0$, choose N such that $n \geq N \Rightarrow a_n - L < \varepsilon/2$. Then for all $m, n \geq N$, $ a_n - a_m \leq a_n - L + a_m - L < \varepsilon$. Hence (a_n) is Cauchy.
Cauchy criterion: Cauchy $\Rightarrow$ convergence	Let (a_n) be Cauchy. Then (a_n) is bounded, so by Bolzano–Weierstrass there exists a subsequence $a_{n_k} \rightarrow L$. For $\varepsilon > 0$, choose N_1 such that $m, n \geq N_1 \Rightarrow a_n - a_m < \varepsilon/2$, and choose K such that $k \geq K \Rightarrow a_{n_k} - L < \varepsilon/2$. Choose k with $k \geq K$ and $n_k \geq N_1$. Then for every $n \geq N_1$, $ a_n - L \leq a_n - a_{n_k} + a_{n_k} - L < \varepsilon$. Thus $a_n \rightarrow L$.
Cauchy sequences are bounded	Let (a_n) be Cauchy. Choose N such that $m, n \geq N \Rightarrow a_n - a_m < 1$. Fix $m = N$. Then for $n \geq N$, $ a_n \leq a_n - a_N + a_N < 1 + a_N $. Set $M := \max\{ a_0 , \dots, a_{N-1} , 1 + a_N \}$. Then $ a_n \leq M$ for every n , so (a_n) is bounded.
Monotone sequence with bounded subsequence	Assume (a_n) is increasing and has a bounded subsequence $ a_{n_k} \leq M$. For every n , choose k with $n \leq n_k$. By monotonicity, $a_n \leq a_{n_k} \leq M$. Thus (a_n) is bounded above. Since it is increasing and bounded, it converges. The decreasing case is analogous.
Differentiable $\Rightarrow$ continuous	Assume f is differentiable at x_0 . For $h \neq 0$, $f(x_0 + h) - f(x_0) = \frac{f(x_0+h)-f(x_0)}{h} h$. Hence $\lim_{h \rightarrow 0} (f(x_0 + h) - f(x_0)) = f'(x_0) \cdot 0 = 0$. Thus $\lim_{x \rightarrow x_0} f(x) = f(x_0)$, so f is continuous at x_0 .
Rolle's theorem	Since $f \in C([a, b])$, it attains a minimum and maximum. If f is constant, then $f' = 0$ on (a, b) . Otherwise, because $f(a) = f(b)$, at least one extremum occurs at some $\xi \in (a, b)$. Since f is differentiable there, Fermat's theorem gives $f'(\xi) = 0$.
Mean value theorem	Define $g(x) := f(x) - \frac{f(b)-f(a)}{b-a}(x - a)$. Then g is continuous on $[a, b]$, differentiable on (a, b) , and $g(a) = g(b) = f(a)$. By Rolle, some $\xi \in (a, b)$ satisfies $0 = g'(\xi) = f'(\xi) - \frac{f(b)-f(a)}{b-a}$. Hence $f'(\xi) = \frac{f(b)-f(a)}{b-a}$.
Strict monotonicity $\Rightarrow$ injectivity	Let $x_1 \neq x_2$; w.l.o.g. $x_1 < x_2$. If f is strictly increasing, then $f(x_1) < f(x_2)$; if strictly decreasing, then $f(x_1) > f(x_2)$. Thus $f(x_1) \neq f(x_2)$, so f is injective.
Algebra of continuous functions	Let $x_n \rightarrow x_0$. Continuity gives $f(x_n) \rightarrow f(x_0)$ and $g(x_n) \rightarrow g(x_0)$. By the limit laws, $f(x_n) \pm g(x_n) \rightarrow f(x_0) \pm g(x_0)$, $f(x_n)g(x_n) \rightarrow f(x_0)g(x_0)$, and, if $g(x_0) \neq 0$, $f(x_n)/g(x_n) \rightarrow f(x_0)/g(x_0)$. Hence the corresponding functions are continuous.

Essential Proofs II

Bolzano–Weierstrass on [a, b]	A sequence $(x_n) \subseteq [a, b]$ is bounded. By Bolzano–Weierstrass, it has a convergent subsequence $x_{n_k} \rightarrow x_0$. Since $a \leq x_{n_k} \leq b$ for all k , order preservation under limits yields $a \leq x_0 \leq b$. Thus $x_0 \in [a, b]$.
Continuous on compact $\Rightarrow$ uniformly continuous	Assume not. Then some $\varepsilon_0 > 0$ and sequences $x_n, y_n \in [a, b]$ satisfy $ x_n - y_n < 1/n$ but $ f(x_n) - f(y_n) \geq \varepsilon_0$. Choose a subsequence $x_{n_k} \rightarrow x^* \in [a, b]$. Since $ x_{n_k} - y_{n_k} \rightarrow 0$, also $y_{n_k} \rightarrow x^*$. Continuity gives $f(x_{n_k}), f(y_{n_k}) \rightarrow f(x^*)$, hence $ f(x_{n_k}) - f(y_{n_k}) \rightarrow 0$, a contradiction.
Intermediate value theorem	Assume $f(a) \leq c \leq f(b)$ and set $X := \{x \in [a, b] \mid f(x) \leq c\}$, $x^* := \sup X$. Choose $x_n \in X$ with $x_n \rightarrow x^*$; continuity gives $f(x^*) \leq c$. If $f(x^*) < c$, continuity yields $\delta > 0$ such that $f(y) < c$ for $ y - x^* < \delta$, producing $y > x^*$ in X , contradicting the definition of x^* . Hence $f(x^*) = c$.
Cauchy criterion for series	Let $s_n := \sum_{k=0}^n a_k$. Then $\sum_{k=0}^\infty a_k$ converges iff (s_n) converges, iff (s_n) is Cauchy. Since $s_n - s_m = \sum_{k=m+1}^n a_k$, this is equivalent to $\forall \varepsilon > 0 \exists N \forall n \geq m \geq N : \left \sum_{k=m+1}^n a_k \right < \varepsilon$.
Absolute convergence $\Rightarrow$ convergence	Assume $\sum a_n $ converges. By the Cauchy criterion, for large $n \geq m$, $\sum_{k=m+1}^n a_k < \varepsilon$. Therefore $\left \sum_{k=m+1}^n a_k \right \leq \sum_{k=m+1}^n a_k < \varepsilon$. Thus $\sum a_n$ is Cauchy and converges. Moreover, $\left \sum_{k=0}^n a_k \right \leq \sum_{k=0}^n a_k $; passing to the limit gives $ \sum a_k \leq \sum a_k $.
Leibniz criterion	Let $s_n := \sum_{k=0}^n (-1)^k a_k$ with $a_n \downarrow 0$. Then $s_{2n+2} - s_{2n} = -a_{2n+1} + a_{2n+2} \leq 0$, so (s_{2n}) decreases, while $s_{2n+3} - s_{2n+1} = a_{2n+2} - a_{2n+3} \geq 0$, so (s_{2n+1}) increases. Also $s_{2n+1} \leq s_{2n}$ and $s_{2n} - s_{2n+1} = a_{2n+1} \rightarrow 0$. Thus both subsequences converge to the same limit, hence (s_n) converges.
Rearrangement of an absolutely convergent series	Let $\varphi : \mathbb{N}_0 \rightarrow \mathbb{N}_0$ be bijective and $\sum a_n < \infty$. Given $\varepsilon > 0$, choose N such that $\sum_{n>N} a_n < \varepsilon$. Choose M so that $\{0, \dots, N\} \subseteq \{\varphi(0), \dots, \varphi(M)\}$. For $m \geq M$, the difference between $\sum_{k=0}^m a_{\varphi(k)}$ and $\sum_{n=0}^\infty a_n$ contains only terms with index $> N$, so its absolute value is $< \varepsilon$. Hence the rearranged series has the same sum; applying the same argument to $ a_n $ gives absolute convergence.

Solutions I

Affine supremum	Let $S \neq \emptyset$ be bounded above, $a > 0$, and $M := \sup S$. For every $x \in S$, $x \leq M \Rightarrow ax + b \leq aM + b$, so $aM + b$ is an upper bound of $aS + b := \{ax + b : x \in S\}$. Conversely, let $P := \sup(aS + b)$. Then for every $x \in S$, $ax + b \leq P \Rightarrow x \leq (P - b)/a$. Thus $(P - b)/a$ is an upper bound of S , hence $M \leq (P - b)/a \Rightarrow aM + b \leq P$. Together with $P \leq aM + b$, $\boxed{\sup_{x \in S} (ax + b) = a \sup_{x \in S} x + b}$.
Viewing-angle maximum	For heights 92 and 46 and distance $x > 0$, $\vartheta(x) = \arctan\left(\frac{92}{x}\right) - \arctan\left(\frac{46}{x}\right)$. Since $\vartheta(x) \rightarrow 0$ for $x \rightarrow 0^+$ and $x \rightarrow \infty$, an interior critical point gives the global maximum. Moreover, $\vartheta'(x) = -\frac{92}{x^2+92^2} + \frac{46}{x^2+46^2}$. Thus $\vartheta'(x) = 0 \iff \frac{46}{x^2+46^2} = \frac{92}{x^2+92^2} \iff x^2 = 2 \cdot 46^2$. Hence $\boxed{x = 46\sqrt{2} \approx 65.05}$.
$x \sin(1/x)$ at 0	Let $f(x) = x \sin(1/x)$ for $x \neq 0$ and $f(0) = 0$. The difference quotient is $\frac{f(h)-f(0)}{h} = \sin(1/h)$. Choose $h_n = \frac{2}{\pi n} \rightarrow 0$. Then $\sin(1/h_n) = \sin(\pi n/2)$ does not converge. Therefore $\boxed{f \text{ is not differentiable at } 0}$. Nevertheless, $ f(x) \leq x \rightarrow 0$, so f is continuous at 0.
$x^2 \sin(1/x)$ at 0	Let $f(x) = x^2 \sin(1/x)$ for $x \neq 0$ and $f(0) = 0$. Then $\frac{f(h)-f(0)}{h} = h \sin(1/h)$. Since $ h \sin(1/h) \leq h \rightarrow 0$, the squeeze theorem gives $\boxed{f'(0) = 0}$.
Piecewise exponential: corner	Let $g(x) = \begin{cases} e^{-x}, & x > 0, \\ 1, & x \leq 0. \end{cases}$ Then g is continuous at 0, but $g'_+(0) = \lim_{h \rightarrow 0^+} \frac{e^{-h}-1}{h} = -1$, $g'_-(0) = \lim_{h \rightarrow 0^-} \frac{1-1}{h} = 0$. Since the one-sided derivatives differ, $\boxed{g \text{ is not differentiable at } 0}$.
Cube root: vertical tangent	For $f(x) = \sqrt[3]{x}$, $\frac{f(x)-f(0)}{x} = \frac{x^{1/3}}{x} = x^{-2/3} \rightarrow +\infty \quad (x \rightarrow 0)$. Hence no finite derivative exists: $\boxed{f \text{ is not differentiable at } 0}$. Geometrically, the graph has a vertical tangent there.
Oscillating tangent slopes	Let $h(x) = \begin{cases} x \sin(1/x), & x \neq 0, \\ 0, & x = 0. \end{cases}$ Then $ h(x) - h(0) = x \sin(1/x) \leq x \rightarrow 0$, so h is continuous at 0. But $\frac{h(x)-h(0)}{x} = \sin(1/x)$, which has no limit as $x \rightarrow 0$. Thus $\boxed{h \text{ is continuous but not differentiable at } 0}$.
Rational–irrational function	Let $f(x) = \begin{cases} x, & x \in \mathbb{Q}, \\ 0, & x \notin \mathbb{Q}. \end{cases}$ At 0, $ f(x) - f(0) = f(x) \leq x \rightarrow 0$, so f is continuous. Let $x_0 \neq 0$. Choose rational $r_n \rightarrow x_0$ and irrational $s_n \rightarrow x_0$. Then $f(r_n) = r_n \rightarrow x_0$, $f(s_n) = 0 \rightarrow 0$. The two limits differ, so $\boxed{f \text{ is continuous exactly at } x = 0}$.

Solutions II